# Grammar

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*For the rules of the English language, see English grammar. For other uses, see Grammar (disambiguation).*

In linguistics, **grammar** is the set of rules for how a natural language is structured, as demonstrated by its speakers or writers. Grammar rules may concern the use of clauses, phrases, and words. The term may also refer to the study of such rules, a subject that includes phonology, morphology, and syntax, together with phonetics, semantics, and pragmatics. There are many specific theories about grammar, including traditional grammar and theoretical grammar.

Fluency in a particular language variety involves a speaker internalizing these rules, many or most of which are acquired by observing other speakers, as opposed to intentional study or instruction. Much of this internalization occurs during early childhood; learning a language later in life usually involves more direct instruction.[1] The term *grammar* can also describe the linguistic behaviour of groups of speakers and writers rather than individuals.[2] Differences in scale are important to this meaning: for example, English grammar could describe those rules followed by every one of the language's speakers.[3] At smaller scales, it may refer to rules shared by smaller groups of speakers.

A description, study, or analysis of such rules may also be known as a grammar book. A reference work describing the grammar of a language is called a reference grammar or simply a grammar. An descriptive grammar describes the grammatical constructions of a particular group or dialect that is called descriptive grammar. This kind of linguistic description contrasts with linguistic prescription, a plan to impose some notion of correctness on others, particularly in writing. The prescriptive textbook for Greek schoolboys until as late as the twelfth century AD. The Romans based their grammatical writings on it and its basic format remains the basis for grammar guides in many languages even today.[4] Latin grammar developed by following Greek models from the 1st century BC, due to the work of authors such as Orbilius Pupillus, Remmius Palaemon, Marcus Valerius Probus, Verrius Flaccus, and Aemilius Asper.

The grammar of Irish originated in the 7th century with Auraicept na n-Éces. Arabic grammar emerged with Abu al-Aswad al-Du'ali in the 7th century. The first treatises on Hebrew grammar appeared in the High Middle Ages, in the form of Midrash (discussion of the Hebrew Bible). The Karaite tradition originated in Abbasid Baghdad. The Diqduq (10th century) is one of the earliest grammatical descriptions of Hebrew to survive intact.[5] Ibn Barun in the 12th century, compares the Hebrew language with Arabic in the Islamic grammatical tradition.[6]

Belonging to the trivium of the seven liberal arts, grammar was taught as a core discipline throughout the Middle Ages, following the influence of authors from Late Antiquity, such as Priscian. Treatment of vernaculars began gradually during the High Middle Ages, with isolated works such as the First Grammatical Treatise, but became truly developed in the Renaissance and Baroque periods. In 1486, Antonio de Nebrija published *Las introducciones Latinas contrapuesto el romance al Latin*, and the first Spanish grammar, Gramática de la lengua castellana, in 1492. During the 16th-century Italian Renaissance, the Questione della lingua was the discussion on the status and ideal form of the Italian language, influenced by Dante's *De vulgari eloquentia* (Pietro Bembo, *Prose della volgar lingua* Venice 1525). The first grammar of Slovene was written in 1583 by Adam Bohorič, and Grammatica Germanicae Linguae, the first grammar of German, was published in 1578.

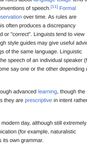
Grammars of some languages began to be compiled for the purposes of evangelism and Bible translation from the 16th century onward, such as *Grammatica o Arte de la Lengua General de Los Indios de Los Reynos del Perú* (1560), a Quechua grammar by Fray Domingo de Santo Tomás.

From the latter part of the 18th century, grammar came to be understood as a subfield of the emerging discipline of modern linguistics. The *Deutsche Grammatik* of Jacob Grimm was first published in the 1810s. The Comparative Grammar of Franz Bopp, the author of the book comparative linguistics, came out in 1833.

## Theoretical frameworks [edit]

*Further information: Syntax § Theoretical syntactic models*

Frameworks of grammar which seek to give a precise scientific theory of the syntactic rules of grammar and their function have been developed in theoretical linguistics.



A generative parse tree: the sentence is divided into a noun phrase (subject), and a verb phrase, which contains a verb and a noun phrase. In contrast to structural and functional grammar, which consider the subject and object as equal constituents.[NB 1]

This list is incomplete; you can help by adding missing items. (March 2018)

- Dependency grammar: dependency relation (Lucien Tesnière) (1959)
  - Link grammar
- Functional grammar (structural–functional analysis):
  - Danish Functionalism
  - Functional Discourse Grammar
  - Role and reference grammar
  - Systemic functional grammar
- Montague grammar

Other frameworks are based on an innate "universal grammar", an idea developed by Noam Chomsky. In such models, the object is to describe the principles that underlie this innate grammar.

- Cognitive grammar / Cognitive linguistics
  - Construction grammar
    - Fluid Construction Grammar
  - Word grammar
- Generative grammar:
  - Transformational grammar (1960s)
  - Generative semantics (1970s) and Semantic Syntax (1990s)
  - Phrase structure grammar (late 1970s)
    - Generalized phrase structure grammar (late 1970s)
      - Head-driven phrase structure grammar (1985)
      - Principles and parameters grammar (Government and binding theory) (1980s)
  - Lexical functional grammar
  - Categorial grammar (Lambda calculus)
  - Minimalist program–based grammar (1993)
- Stochastic grammar: probabilistic
  - Operator grammar

Parse trees are commonly used by such frameworks to depict their rules. There are various alternative schemes for specific rules:

- Affix grammar over a finite lattice
- Backus–Naur form
- Constraint grammar
- Lambda calculus
- Tree-adjoining grammar
- X-bar theory

## Development [edit]

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*Main articles: Historical linguistics and History of English grammars*

Grammars evolve through usage. Historically, with the advent of written representations, formal rules about language usage tend to appear also, although such rules tend to describe writing conventions more accurately than conventions of speech.[7][8] Formal grammars and codifications of usage which are developed by professional documentation and observation over time. As rules are established and developed, the prescriptive concept of grammatical correctness can arise. This often produces a discrepancy between everyday colloquial speech and that which has been accepted, over time, as being standard or "correct". Linguists tend to view prescriptive grammars as having little justification beyond their authors' aesthetic tastes, although this can sometimes be useful in practice (see *standard language employment* based on descriptions of usage in contemporary writings of the same language). Formal proponents of this philosophy point out the explanation for variation in speech, particularly variation in the speech of an individual speaker (for example, why some speakers say "I didn't do nothing", some say "I didn't do anything", and some say one or other depending on social context).

The formal study of grammar is an important part of children's schooling from a young age through advanced learning, though the rules taught in schools are not a "grammar" in the sense that most linguists use, particularly as they are prescriptive in intent rather than descriptive.

Constructed languages (also called *planned languages* or *conlangs*) are more common in the modern day, although still extremely uncommon compared to natural languages. Some well-known constructed languages from the past include, for example, naturalistic Interlingua, schematic Esperanto, and the highly logical Lojban). Each of these languages has its own grammar.

Syntax refers to the linguistic structure above the word level (for example, how sentences are formed) – though without taking into account intonation, which is the domain of phonology. Morphology, by contrast, refers to the structure at and below the word level (for example, how compound words are formed), but above the phonological structure (which, like intonation, are in the domain of phonology).[10] Research on how language is learned and processed falls within the domain of psychology. Analytic languages use syntax to convey information that is encoded by inflection in synthetic languages. In other words, word order is not significant, and morphology is highly regularized. Chinese is a good example of an analytic language because it has no inflection, and meaning is dependent on word order. For example, Chinese and Afrikaans and Afrikaans are highly analytic, thus meaning is very context-dependent. (Both have some inflections, which could have had more in the past; they are becoming more analytic over time.) Latin, which is highly synthetic, uses affixes and inflections to convey the same information that Chinese does with syntax. Because Latin words are quite (though not totally) self-contained, an intelligible Latin sentence can be made from elements arranged almost arbitrarily. Latin has a complex affixation and simple syntax, whereas Chinese has the opposite.

## Education [edit]

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Prescriptive grammar is taught in primary and secondary school. The term "grammar school" historically referred to a school (attached to a cathedral or monastery) that teaches Latin grammar to future priests and monks. It originally referred to a school that taught students how to read, scan, interpret, and declaim Greek and Latin poets (including hymns' Virgil, Euripides, and others). These should not be mistaken for the related, albeit distinct, modern British grammar schools.

A standard language is a dialect that is promoted above other dialects in writing, education, and, broadly speaking, in the public sphere; it contrasts with vernacular dialects, which may be the objects of study in academic, descriptive linguistics but rarely have this privilege in public prescriptivity. The standardized "first language" taught in primary education may be subject to political controversy because it may sometimes establish a standard defining nationality or ethnicity.

Recently, efforts have begun to update grammar instruction in primary and secondary education. The main focus has been to prevent the use of outdated prescriptive rules in favor of setting norms based on earlier descriptive research in linguistics. Proponents of this approach believe that relative "correctness" of prescribed standard forms in comparison to non-standard dialects. A series of evaluations have found that the explicit teaching of grammatical parts of speech and syntax has little or no effect on the improvement of student writing quality in elementary school, middle school or high school; other methods of writing instruction had far greater effectiveness.[11][12][13] Research on writing instruction, collaborative writing, summary writing, process instruction, sentence combining and inquiry projects.[12][13][14]

The preeminence of Parisian French has ringed largely unchallenged throughout the history of modern French literature. Standard Italian is based on the speech of Florence rather than on the geographical site its influence on early literature. Similarly, standard Spanish is based on the speech of Madrid but on that of educated speakers from other metropolises such as Quito and Mexico City (see Gramática de la lengua castellana). In Argentina and Uruguay the Spanish standard is based on the local dialects of Buenos Aires and Montevideo (Rioplatense Spanish), Portuguese has, for now, two official standards, Brazilian Portuguese and European Portuguese.

The Serbian variant of Serbo-Croatian is likewise divided; Serbia and the Republika Srpska of Bosnia and Herzegovina use even more distinct normative subvarieties, with differences in yat reflexes. The existence and codification of a distinct Montenegrin standard is a matter of controversy, some treat Montenegrin as a separate standard lect, and some think that it should be considered another form of Serbian.

Norwegian has two standards, Bokmål and Nynorsk, the choice between which is subject to controversy: Each Norwegian municipality can decide whether they want to use primarily Bokmål or Nynorsk, or remain "language neutral". Nynorsk is backed by 27 percent of municipalities. The main language used in primary schools, chosen by referendum within the local school district, normally follows the official language of its municipality. Standard German emerged from the standardized chancellery use of High German in the 16th and 17th centuries. Until about 1800, it was almost exclusively a written language, and had no native speakers. Most of the former German dialects are nearly extinct.

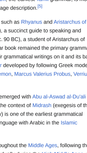
Standard Chinese has official status as the standard spoken form of the Chinese language in the People's Republic of China (PRC), the Republic of China (ROC), and the Republic of Singapore. Pronunciation of Standard Chinese is based on the local accent of Mandarin Chinese from Luanping, Chengde in Hebei Province near Beijing, while grammar and syntax are based on modern vernacular written Chinese.

Modern Standard Arabic is directly based on Classical Arabic, the language of the Qur'an. The Hindustani language has two standards, Hindi and Urdu.

In the United States, the Society for the Promotion of Good Grammar designated 4 March as National Grammar Day in 2008.[15]

Grammar instructions also differs between first-language (L1) and second-language (L2) learners, especially in academic writing. First-language (L1) are those composing in their native language, while second-language (L2) writers are writing in language they learned after childhood.[17] Research shows that L2 learners face additional challenges when revising grammar, as they must manage both language acquisition and writing development at the same time. According to Ester Odilia Brisco, revision in L2 writing is cognitively demanding and occurs not only after writing, but also during the planning and drafting stages. She argues that L2 writers often misread errors and revise unnecessary errors while composing, unlike L1 writers who rely more on intuition and automatic grammar use.[18]

Title page of Joseph Priestley's Rudiments of English Grammar (1761)


Cherokee language instruction at Kilowah Academy

## See also [edit]

- Ambiguous grammar
- Harmonic grammar
- Higher order grammar (HOG)
- Linguistic error
- Linguistic typology
- Model-theoretic grammar
- Paragrammatism
- Speech error
- Tagmeme
- Usage (language)

## Notes [edit]

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